

Introduction to automata theory

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A large part of this slide is based on the previous FLOLAC course of Bow-Yaw Wang

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Deterministic finite automata

schematic of deterministic finite automata



Figure 1: Schematic of finite automata

- A finite automation has a finite set of control *states*.
- A finite automation reads input symbols of from left to right.
- A finite automation accepts or rejects an input after reading the input.

finite automation M_1

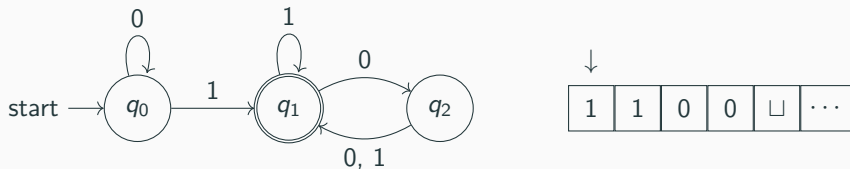
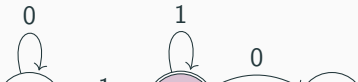
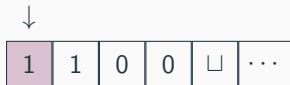
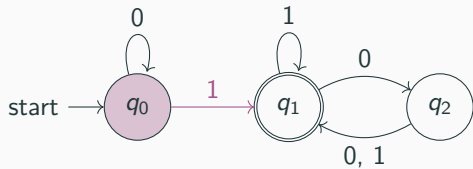
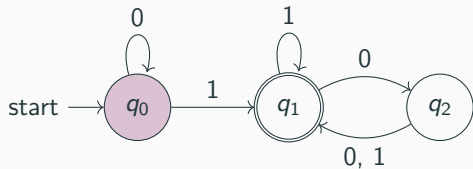
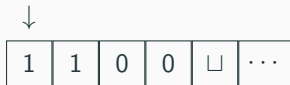
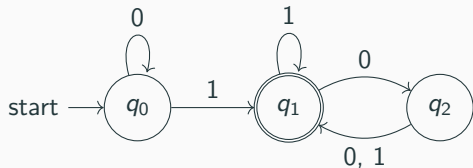


Figure 2: DFA M_1

Fig. 2 shows the **state diagram** of an automation M_1 , which has

- 3 **states**: q_0, q_1, q_2 ;
- a **start state**: q_0 ;
- an **accepting state**: q_1 ;
- 6 **transitions**: $q_0 \xrightarrow{0} q_0$, $q_0 \xrightarrow{1} q_1$, $q_1 \xrightarrow{1} q_1$, $q_1 \xrightarrow{0} q_2$, $q_2 \xrightarrow{0} q_1$ and $q_2 \xrightarrow{1} q_1$.

accepting and rejecting strings



DFA as data structures

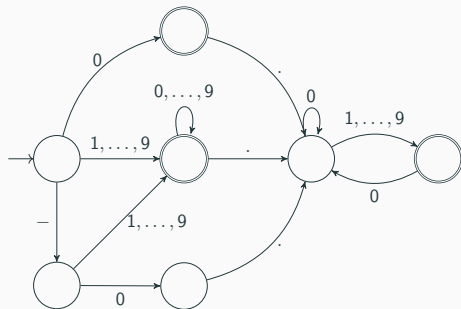
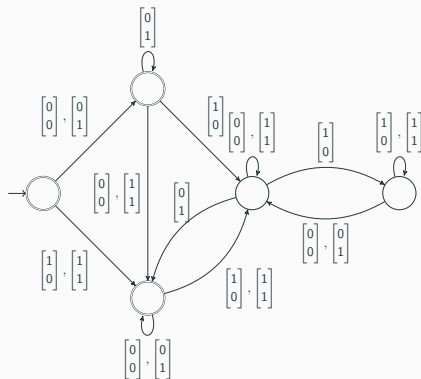


Figure 3: a DFA for decimal numbers

- the DFA on the left recognizes the strings over alphabet $\{-, ., 0, 1, \dots, 9\}$ that encodes real numbers with a finite decimal part.
- one wishes to exclude 002, -0 or 3.10000 but accept 37, 10.503 or -0.2345
- an English description of the correct encoding is rather long...

DFA as data structures



- the inequality $2x - y \leq 2$ has infinitely many integer solutions
- one can encode the solutions as words over alphabet $\{[0, 0], [0, 1], [1, 0], [1, 1]\}$ as a DFA

Figure 4: a DFA for the solution of $2x - y \leq 2$

DFA – formal definition

Defn. (DFA)

A **deterministic finite automaton** M is a 5-tuple $(Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$, where

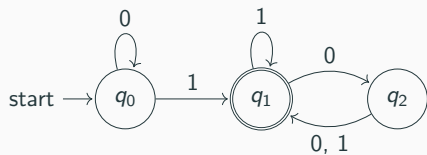
- Q is a finite set of **states**;
- Σ is the set of **input symbols**, i.e., an alphabet;
- $\delta : Q \times \Sigma \rightarrow Q$ is the **transition function**;
- $q_0 \in Q$ is the **start state**; and
- $F \subseteq Q$ is the set of **accepting** or **final** states.



- the set of strings accepted by a DFA M is called the **language** of M , written as $L(M)$
- we also say M **recognizes** or **accepts** $L(M)$

M_1 – formal definition

the DFA $M_1 = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_1, F)$ consists of



- $Q = \{q_0, q_1, q_2\}$;
- $\Sigma = \{0, 1\}$;
- q_0 is the start state;
- $F = q_1$; and

• $\delta : Q \times \Sigma \rightarrow Q$ is

	0	1
q_0	q_0	q_1
q_1	q_2	q_1
q_2	q_1	q_1

moreover, we have

$$L(M_1) = \{w \mid w \text{ contains at least one } 1 \text{ and an even number of } 0\text{'s follow the last } 1.\}$$

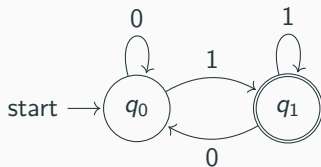


Figure 5: DFA M_2

- Fig. 5 shows $M_2 = (\{q_0, q_1\}, \{0, 1\}, \delta, q_0, \{q_1\})$ where $\delta =$

	0	1
q_0	q_0	q_1
q_1	q_0	q_1

.
- $L(M_2) = \{w \mid w \text{ ends in a } 1\}$.

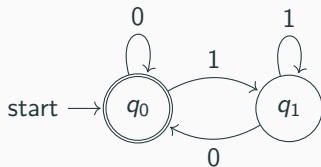


Figure 6: DFA M_3

- Fig. 6 shows $M_3 = (\{q_0, q_1\}, \{0, 1\}, \delta, q_0, \{q_0\})$ with $\delta =$

	0	1
q_0	q_0	q_1
q_1	q_0	q_1

.
- $L(M_3) = \{w \mid w \text{ ends in a 0 or is the empty string } \epsilon\}$.

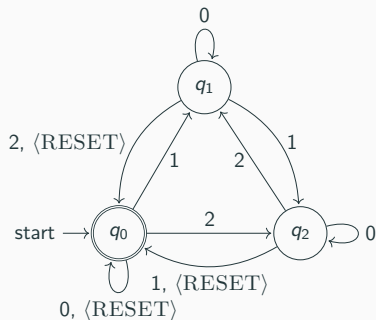


Figure 7: DFA M_5

- Fig. 7 shows $M_5 = (\{q_0, q_1, q_2\}, \{0, 1, 2, \langle \text{RESET} \rangle\}, \delta, q_0, \{q_0\})$.
- strings accepted by M_5 are:
 $\epsilon, 0, 00, 12, 21, 000, 012, 102, 120, 021, 201, 210, 111, 222, \dots$
- M_5 computes the sum of input symbols modulo 3. It resets upon the input symbol $\langle \text{RESET} \rangle$. Thus M_5 accepts the strings whose sum is a multiple of 3 after $\langle \text{RESET} \rangle$.

computation – formal definition

Let $M = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ be a DFA.

Defn.

- on an input word $w = a_1 \cdots a_n$ with $a_i \in \Sigma$ for all $i \in [n]$, a run of M on w starting from $p \in Q$ is a sequence:

$$p_0 \ a_1 \ p_1 \ a_2 \ p_2 \ \cdots \ a_n \ p_n$$

with $p_i \in Q$ for all $i = 0, 1, \dots, n$, $p_0 = p$ and $\delta(p_j, a_{j+1}) = p_{j+1}$ for all $j = 0, 1, \dots, n-1$.

- a run of M on w is defined as a run of M on w starting from q_0 .
- a run of M on w is called an **accepting run** if $p_n \in F$.
- a word $w \in \Sigma^*$ is **accepted** by M if there is an accepting run of M on w .
- the **language** $L(M)$ of M is the set of words accepted by M .



Defn. (regular language)

A language L is **regular** if there is a DFA M such that $L(M) = L$.



Remark.

- for every word $w \in L(M)$, there is exactly **one** run of M on w .
- the empty string ϵ is accepted by M if and only if $q_0 \in F$.



boolean operations

Let A and B be languages over an alphabet Σ .

- **union:** $A \cup B = \{w \mid w \in A \vee w \in B\}$.
- **intersection:** $A \cap B = \{w \mid w \in A \wedge w \in B\}$.
- **complementation:** $\bar{A} = \{w \mid w \in \Sigma^* \wedge w \notin A\}$.

Thm.

Regular languages are closed under Boolean operations. □

Thm. (closed under complement)

For every DFA M over an alphabet Σ , there exists a DFA M' over Σ such that $L(M') = \overline{L(M)}$. □

Proof.

Let $M = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$. Define $M' := (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F' := Q \setminus F)$. ■

Algorithm for DFA complementation

Algorithm 1 DFA complementation $\text{CompDFA}(M)$

Input DFA $M = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$

Output DFA $M' = (Q', \Sigma, \delta', q'_0, F')$ with $L(M') = \overline{L(M)}$

```
1:  $Q' \leftarrow Q; \delta' \leftarrow \delta; q'_0 \leftarrow q_0; F' = \emptyset$   
2: for all  $q \in Q$  do  
3:   if  $q \notin F$  then  
4:      $F'.\text{add}(q)$ 
```

Proof detail

we demonstrate here how to write a formal proof.

Proof.

want to show $L(M') = \overline{L(M)} = \Sigma^* \setminus L(M)$:

- $L(M') \subseteq \Sigma^* \setminus L(M)$, i.e., for each $w \in L(M')$ we have $w \in \Sigma^* \setminus L(M)$.
 - for each $w = a_1 \dots a_n \in L(M')$, there is a (unique) run $\rho = q_0 a_1 q_1 a_2 \dots a_n q_n$ of M' such that $\delta'(q_j, a_{j+1}) = q_{j+1}$ for all $j = 0, 1, \dots, n-1$.
 - w is accepted by $M' \implies q_n \in F' = Q \setminus F$ by construction. We have $q_n \notin F$.
 - Then $w \notin L(M)$ by viewing ρ as a run of M . Therefore $w \in \Sigma^* \setminus L(M) = \overline{L(M)}$.
- $(\Sigma^* \setminus L(M)) \subseteq L(M')$, i.e., for each $w \in \Sigma^* \setminus L(M)$ we have $w \in L(M')$.
 - For each $w = a_1 \dots a_n \in \overline{L(M)}$, there is a (unique) run $\rho' = q_0 a_1 q_1 \dots a_n q_n$ of M such that $\delta(q_j, a_{j+1}) = q_{j+1}$ for all $j = 0, 1, \dots, n-1$.
 - Since $w \notin L(M)$, we have $q_n \notin F$ and hence $q_n \in Q \setminus F$.
 - However, by viewing ρ' as a run of M' , ρ' is an accepting run of M' on w .
 - Thus $w \in L(M')$.

boolean operations (cont.)

Thm. (closed under intersection)

For every two DFA M_1 and M_2 , there is a DFA M' such that $L(M') = L(M_1) \cap L(M_2)$. $\square$

Proof.

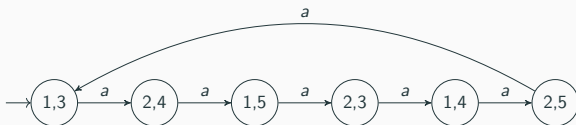
Let $M_1 = (Q_1, \Sigma, \delta_1, p_1, F_1)$ and $M_2 = (Q_2, \Sigma, \delta_2, p_2, F_2)$. Construct $M' = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ as follows:

- $Q := Q_1 \times Q_2$;
- $\delta((r_1, r_2), a) := (\delta_1(r_1, a), \delta_2(r_2, a))$;
- $q_0 := (p_1, p_2)$;
- $F := F_1 \times F_2$.

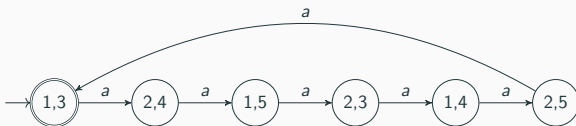




(a) DFA M_1 and M_2



(b) product DFA $M_1 \times M_2$



(c) DFA for intersection of M_1 and M_2

boolean operations (cont.)

Thm. (closed under union)

For every two DFA M_1 and M_2 , there is a DFA M' such that $L(M') = L(M_1) \cup L(M_2)$. $\square$

Proof.

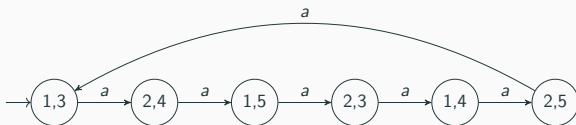
Let $M_1 = (Q_1, \Sigma, \delta_1, p_1, F_1)$ and $M_2 = (Q_2, \Sigma, \delta_2, p_2, F_2)$. Construct $M' = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ as follows:

- $Q := Q_1 \times Q_2$;
- $\delta((r_1, r_2), a) := (\delta_1(r_1, a), \delta_2(r_2, a))$;
- $q_0 := (p_1, p_2)$;
- $F := (F_1 \times Q_2) \cup (Q_1 \times F_2) = \{(r_1, r_2) \mid r_1 \in F_1 \vee r_2 \in F_2\}$.

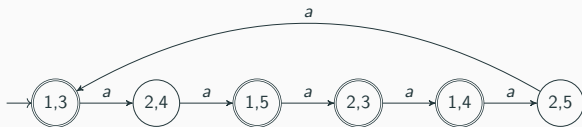




(a) DFA M_1 and M_2



(b) Product DFA $M_1 \times M_2$



(c) DFA for union of M_1 and M_2

algorithms for boolean combinations

Algorithm 2 Boolean Combination of two DFA $\text{BinOp}[\odot](M_1, M_2)$

Input DFAs $M_1 = (Q_1, \Sigma, \delta_1, q_{01}, F_1)$ and $M_2 = (Q_2, \Sigma, \delta_2, q_{02}, F_2)$

Output DFA $M = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ with $L(M) = L(M_1) \hat{\odot} L(M_2)$

```
1:  $Q, \delta, F \leftarrow \emptyset$ 
2:  $q_0 \leftarrow [q_{01}, q_{02}]$ 
3:  $W \leftarrow \{q_0\}$ 
4: while  $W \neq \emptyset$  do
5:   Pick  $[q_1, q_2] \in W$ 
6:    $Q.\text{add}([q_1, q_2]); W.\text{remove}([q_1, q_2])$ 
7:   if  $(q_1 \in F_1) \odot (q_2 \in F_2)$  then
8:      $F.\text{add}([q_1, q_2])$ 
9:   for all  $a \in \Sigma$  do
10:     $q'_1 \leftarrow \delta_1(q_1, a); q'_2 \leftarrow \delta_2(q_2, a)$ 
11:    if  $[q'_1, q'_2] \notin Q$  then
12:       $W.\text{add}([q'_1, q'_2])$ 
13:     $\delta.\text{add}([q_1, q_2] \xrightarrow{a} [q'_1, q'_2])$ 
```

Language operations $\hat{\odot}$	$b_1 \odot b_2$
Union	$b_1 \vee b_2$
Intersection	$b_1 \wedge b_2$
Set difference ($L_1 \setminus L_2$)	$b_1 \wedge \neg b_2$

Nondeterministic finite automata

few comments about NFA

- When a machine is at a given state and reads an input symbol, there is precisely **one** choice of its next state. This is call **deterministic** computation.
- In **nondeterministic** machines, **multiple** choices may exist for the next state.
- A deterministic finite automaton is abbreviated as DFA; a nondeterministic finite automaton is abbreviated as NFA.
- A DFA is also an NFA.
- Since NFA allow more general computation, they can be much smaller than DFA.

NFA N_4 example

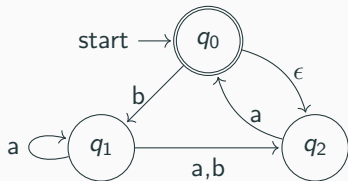


Figure 10: The NFA N_4

- on input string baa, N_4 has several possible computation:
 - $q_0 \xrightarrow{b} q_1 \xrightarrow{a} q_1 \xrightarrow{a} q_1$
 - $q_0 \xrightarrow{b} q_1 \xrightarrow{a} q_2 \xrightarrow{a} q_0$
 - $q_0 \xrightarrow{b} q_1 \xrightarrow{a} q_1 \xrightarrow{a} q_2$

Example N_5

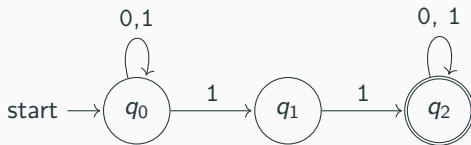


Figure 11: The NFA N_5

- On input word 10110, N_5 has
 - $q_0 \xrightarrow{1} q_1$
 - $q_0 \xrightarrow{1} q_0 \xrightarrow{0} q_0 \xrightarrow{1} q_1 \xrightarrow{1} q_2 \xrightarrow{0} q_2$.
 - ...etc

NFA – formal definition

Defn. (NFA)

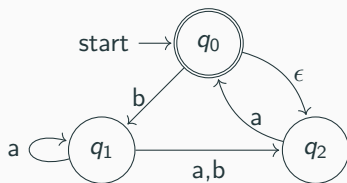
A **nondeterministic finite automaton** M is a 5-tuple $(Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ where

- Q is a finite set of states;
- Σ is a finite alphabet;
- $\delta : Q \times \Sigma_\epsilon \rightarrow 2^Q$ is the transition function, where $\Sigma_\epsilon := \Sigma \cup \{\epsilon\}$, 2^Q is the power set of Q ;
- $q_0 \in Q$ is the start state; and
- $F \subseteq Q$ is the set of accepting (or final) states.



- Note that the transition function accepts the **empty string** ϵ as an input symbol.

the NFA N_4 – formal definition



- $N_4 = (\{q_0, q_1, q_2\}, \{a, b\}, \delta, q_0, \{q_0\})$ is a NFA with transition function

	ϵ	a	b
q_0	$\{q_2\}$	$\emptyset$	$\{q_1\}$
q_1	$\emptyset$	$\{q_1, q_2\}$	$\{q_2\}$
q_2	$\emptyset$	$\{q_0\}$	$\emptyset$

formal definition of computation

Let $N = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ be an NFA and $w = a_1 \cdots a_n$ be a word with $a_i \in \Sigma_\epsilon$ for all $i \in [n]$.

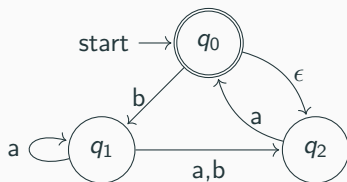
Defn.

- a run of N on w starting from p_0 is the sequence $p_0 a_1 p_1 a_2 \dots a_n p_n$, where $p_i \in Q$ for all $i \in [n] \cup \{0\}$, $p_i \in \delta(p_{i-1}, a_i)$ for all $i \in [n]$.
- a run of N on w is defined as a run of N on w starting from q_0 .
- a run of N on w is called accepting if $p_n \in F$.
- N accepts w if there exists an accepting run of N on w
- the language of N , denoted by $L(N)$ is defined to be the set of all strings accepted by N .



some remarks and example N_4 [Sip13]

- note that finitely many empty strings can be inserted in w .
- the **existence** of an accepting run is sufficient to show the acceptance of an input string.

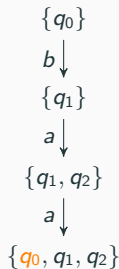
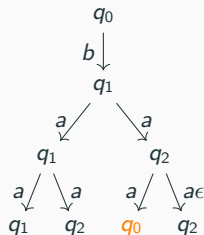


- on input string baa, there are several possible runs:
 - $q_0 \xrightarrow{b} q_1 \xrightarrow{a} q_1 \xrightarrow{a} q_1$
 - $q_0 \xrightarrow{b} q_1 \xrightarrow{a} q_2 \xrightarrow{a} q_0 \rightarrow$ this is accepting
 - $q_0 \xrightarrow{b} q_1 \xrightarrow{a} q_1 \xrightarrow{a} q_2$

equivalence of DFA and NFA

Thm. (equivalence between NFA/DFA)

Every NFA has an equivalent DFA. That is, for every NFA N , there is a DFA M such that $L(M) = L(N)$. □



Proof.

Let $N = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ be an NFA. For $R \subseteq Q$, define

$$E(R) := \{q \in Q \mid q \text{ can be reached from } R \text{ along 0 or more } \epsilon \text{ transitions}\}$$

Construct a DFA $M = (Q', \Sigma, \delta', q'_0, F')$ with:

- $Q' := 2^Q$;
- $\delta'(R, a) := \{q \in Q \mid q \in E(\delta(r, a)) \text{ for some } r \in R\}$;
- $q'_0 := E(\{q_0\})$; and
- $F' := \{R \in Q' \mid R \cap F \neq \emptyset\}$.

Intuitive idea: subset construction

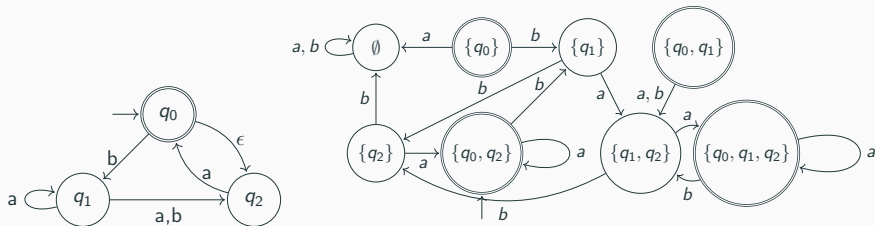


Figure 12: An equivalent DFA to N_4

Algorithm NFAtoDFA

Algorithm 3 Conversion NFAtoDFA(N)

Input NFA $N = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$

Output DFA $M = (Q', \Sigma, \delta', q'_0, F')$ with $L(M') = L(N)$

```
1:  $Q', \delta', F' \leftarrow \emptyset$ 
2: Compute  $E(\{q_0\})$ ;  $q'_0 \leftarrow E(\{q_0\})$ ;  $W \leftarrow \{q'_0\}$ 
3: while  $W \neq \emptyset$  do
4:   pick  $q' \in W$ ;  $W.\text{remove}(q')$ 
5:   compute  $E(\{q'\})$ ;  $Q'.\text{add}(E(\{q'\}))$ 
6:   if  $E(\{q'\}) \cap F \neq \emptyset$  then
7:      $F'.\text{add}(E(\{q'\}))$ 
8:   for all  $a \in \Sigma$  do
9:      $q'' \leftarrow E(\bigcup_{q \in q'} \delta(q, a))$ 
10:    if  $q'' \notin Q'$  then
11:       $W.\text{add}(q'')$ 
12:     $\delta'.\text{add}(q' \xrightarrow{a} q'')$ 
```

- the construction of DFA in the proof is called the **subset construction**.
- succinctness of NFA**: from the construction, we see that the number of states of the DFA is exponentially growth in the number of states of the equivalent NFA in **worst case**.

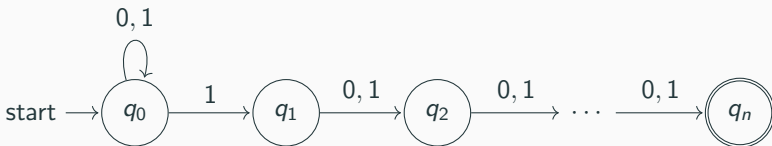
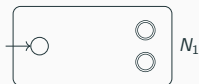


Figure 13: this NFA has no equivalent DFA with fewer than 2^n states

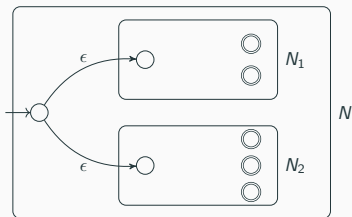
closure properties – revisited

Thm.

The class of regular languages is closed under the union operation. □



(a) NFA N_1 and N_2



(b) NFA N

Proof.

Let $N_i = (Q_i, \Sigma, \delta_i, p_i, F_i)$, $i = 1, 2$ be two NFAs. Construct $N = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ as

- $Q := Q_1 \cup Q_2 \cup \{q_0\};$
- $F := F_1 \cup F_2;$
- $\delta(q, a) = \begin{cases} \delta_1(q, a) & q \in Q_1 \\ \delta_2(q, a) & q \in Q_2 \\ \{p_1, p_2\} & q = q_0 \wedge a = \epsilon \\ \emptyset & q = q_0 \wedge a \neq \epsilon \end{cases}.$

Algorithm for NFA union

Algorithm 4 NFA union $\text{UnionNFA}(N_1, N_2)$

Input NFA $N_1 = (Q_1, \Sigma, \delta_1, p_1, F_1)$ and $N_2 = (Q_2, \Sigma, \delta_2, p_2, F_2)$

Output NFA $N = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ with $L(N) = L(N_1) \cup L(N_2)$

- 1: $Q \leftarrow Q_1 \cup Q_2 \cup \{q\}$ for a fresh q ; $F \leftarrow F_1 \cup F_2$; $q_0 \leftarrow q$
 - 2: $\delta \leftarrow \delta_1 \cup \delta_2 \cup \{q_0 \xrightarrow{\epsilon} p_1, q_0 \xrightarrow{\epsilon} p_2\}$
-

remarks on other NFA boolean operations

- no direct algorithm to construct the complement from an NFA N .
- however, one can obtain the complement as $\overline{N} \leftarrow \text{CompDFA}(\text{NFAtoDFA}(N))$.
- on NFA, it is no longer possible to uniformly implement all binary boolean operations, like DFA.
- for $\text{InterNFA}(N_1, N_2)$, the production construction as in Algorithm 2 still works.
- Algorithm 2 holds for union of NFA N_1 and N_2 if both $L(N_i) \neq \emptyset, i = 1, 2$.
- however, Algorithm 4 is much more efficient.
- Algorithm 2 fails to hold for set difference of NFA.
- however, the set difference of NFA can be constructed from $L(N_1) \cap \overline{L(N_2)}$.

closure properties under regular operations

Defn. (regular op.)

Let A and B be languages over Σ . The **regular operations** are Boolean operations and

- **concatenation**: $A \circ B := \{xy \mid x \in A \wedge y \in B\}$.
- **(Kleene) Star**: $A^* := \{x_1x_2 \dots x_k \mid k \geq 0 \wedge \forall i \in [k]. x_i \in A\} = \bigcup_{n \in \mathbb{N}_0} A^{\circ n}$.



Thm. (closure under regular operation)

The class of regular languages is closed under regular operations.



closure properties under concatenation

Thm.

The class of regular languages is closed under concatenation operation. □

Proof.



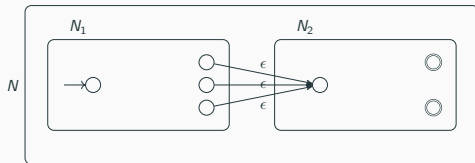
(a) NFA N_1 and N_2

Let $N_i = (Q_i, \Sigma, \delta_i, p_i, F_i)$ recognize L_i for $i = 1, 2$. Construct $N = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, p_1, F_2)$ as:

- $Q := Q_1 \cup Q_2$;

- $\delta(q, a) :=$

$$\begin{cases} \delta_1(q, a) & q \in Q_1 \wedge q \notin F_1 \\ \delta_1(q, a) & q \in F_1 \wedge a \neq \epsilon \\ \delta_1(q, a) \cup \{p_2\} & q \in F_1 \wedge a = \epsilon \\ \delta_2(q, a) & q \in Q_2 \end{cases}$$



(b) NFA N

algorithm for NFA concatenation

Algorithm 5 NFA concatenation $\text{ConcatNFA}(N_1, N_2)$

Input NFA $N_1 = (Q_1, \Sigma, \delta_1, p_1, F_1)$ and $N_2 = (Q_2, \Sigma, \delta_2, p_2, F_2)$

Output An NFA $N = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ with $L(N) = L(N_1) \circ L(N_2)$

1: $Q \leftarrow Q_1 \cup Q_2$; $F \leftarrow F_2$; $q_0 \leftarrow p_1$;

2: $\delta \leftarrow \delta_1 \cup \delta_2$

3: **for all** $q \in F_1$ **do**

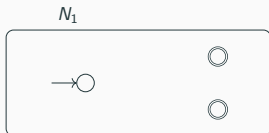
4: $\delta.\text{add}(q \xrightarrow{\epsilon} p_2)$

closure properties under Kleene star

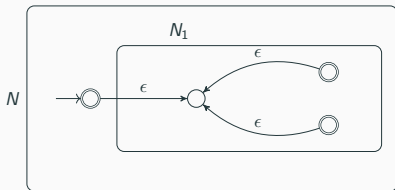
Thm.

The class of regular language is closed under star operation. □

Proof.



(a) NFA N_1



(b) NFA N

Let $N_1 = (Q_1, \Sigma, \delta_1, p_1, F_1)$ recognizes L_1 . Construct $N = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ where

- $Q := \{q_0\} \cup Q_1;$

- $F := \{q_0\} \cup F_1;$

- $\delta :=$

$$\begin{cases} \delta_1(q, a) & q \in Q_1 \wedge q \notin F_1 \\ \delta_1(q, a) & q \in F_1 \wedge a \neq \epsilon \\ \delta_1(q, a) \cup \{p_1\} & q \in F_1 \wedge a = \epsilon \\ \{p_1\} & q = q_0 \wedge a = \epsilon \\ \emptyset & q = q_0 \wedge a \neq \epsilon \end{cases}$$

algorithm for NFA star

Algorithm 6 NFA star $\text{StarNFA}(N)$

Input NFA $N = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$

Output An NFA $N' = (Q', \Sigma, \delta', q'_0, F')$ with $L(N') = L(N)^*$

- 1: $Q'.\text{add} \leftarrow Q \cup \{q'\}$ for a fresh q' ; $q'_0 \leftarrow q'$; $F' \leftarrow F \cup \{q'_0\}$
 - 2: $\delta' \leftarrow \delta \cup \{q'_0 \xrightarrow{\epsilon} q_0\}$
 - 3: **for all** $q \in F$ **do**
 - 4: $\delta'.\text{add}(q \xrightarrow{\epsilon} q_0)$
-

Regular expression

Examples of regular expressions

Regular expressions serve as the input language for many systems that process strings.

- Search commands such as UNIX `grep` or equivalent commands for finding strings that one see in the Web browsers or text-formatting systems. These systems use a regular-expression-like notation for describing patterns that the user wants to find in a file. Different search systems convert the regular expression into either a DFA or an NFA and simulate that automation on the file being searched.
- Lexical-analyzer generators, such as `Lex` or `Flex`. A lexical analyzer is the component of a compiler that breaks the source program into logical units (*token*) of one or more characters that have a shared significance. Examples of tokens include keywords (e.g. `while`), identifier (e.g. any letter followed by zero or more letters or digits), and signs such as `<=` or `+`. A lexical-analyzer generator accepts descriptions of the forms of tokens, which essentially are regular expressions, and produces DFA that recognizes which token appears on the input.

The syntax of Regular expression

Let Σ be an alphabet.

Defn. (regular expression)

A **regular expression** r over Σ is a finite production of the following **(regular)** grammar:

$r ::=$	$\emptyset$	empty set
	ϵ	empty expression
	a	$\forall a \in \Sigma$ symbols
	r^*	(Kleene) star
	$r \mid r$	alternating/choice
	rr	concatenation.

Regular expression is usually abbreviated as **regex**.



Remark.

- we sometimes write $r^+ := rr^*$, hence $r^* = r^+ | \epsilon$.
- we write $r^k := \underbrace{rr \cdots r}_{k \text{ times}}$ and define $r^0 := \epsilon$.
- sometimes $r_1 \mid r_2$ is written as $r_1 + r_2$.
- $\emptyset \neq \{\epsilon\}$ and $\emptyset^k = \emptyset$ for all $k \in \mathbb{N}$. however, $\emptyset^* = \{\epsilon\}$, $\emptyset^0 = \{\epsilon\}$.



Example

Let $\Sigma = \{a, b\}$.

- $\emptyset$ is a regular expression, so are $\emptyset\emptyset$ and $\emptyset a$ where $a \in \Sigma$.
- $(ab)a$ is a regular language and is usually written as aba .
- $(ab)^*$ is a regular expression, so are $((ab)^*)^*$, ab^* , $(ab)^* \mid ab^*$.

Defn. (semantics of regular expression)

A regular expression r over Σ defines the language $L(r)$ over the same alphabet Σ as follows:

- If $r = \emptyset$, then $L(\emptyset) = \emptyset$.
- If $r = a$ for some $a \in \Sigma$ or $a = \epsilon$, then $L(r) = \{a\}$.
- If r is of the form $r_1 r_2$, then $L(r) = L(r_1) \circ L(r_2)$.
- If r is of the form $r_1 \mid r_2$, then $L(r) = L(r_1) \cup L(r_2)$.
- If r is of the form $(r_1)^*$, then $L(r) = (L(r_1))^*$.



- for $a, b \in \Sigma$, $L(ab) = L(a)L(b) = \{a\}\{b\} = \{ab\}$.
- $L((a|b)^*) = (L(a|b))^* = (\{a\} \cup \{b\})^* = \{a, b\}^*$.
- $L(0^*10^*) = \{w \mid w \text{ contains a single } 1\}$.
- $L(\Sigma^*1\Sigma^*) = \{w \mid w \text{ has at least a } 1\}$.
- $L((\Sigma\Sigma)^*) = \{w \mid w \text{ is a string with even length}\}$.
- $L((0|\epsilon)(1|\epsilon)) = \{\epsilon, 0, 1, 01\}$.
- $L(1^*\emptyset) = \emptyset$. $L(r\emptyset) = L(r)L(\emptyset) = L(r)\emptyset = \emptyset$.
- $L(\emptyset^*) = \{\epsilon\}$.
- for any regular expression r , we have $L(r|\emptyset) = L(r)$ and $L(r\epsilon) = L(r)$.

Thm. (regular expression is regular language)

Regular expressions define precisely the class of regular languages. More precisely,

- for every regular expression r over Σ , $L(r)$ is a regular language, i.e., there is an NFA N such that $L(N) = L(r)$;
- for every NFA N , there is a regular expression r such that $L(r) = L(N)$.



first part of the Theorem

Thm.

For every regular expression r over Σ , $L(r)$ is a regular language, i.e., there is an NFA N such that $L(N) = L(r)$. □

Proof. By induction on the regex r .

- $r = \emptyset$. Then $L(r) = \emptyset$. Construct the NFA $N_{\emptyset} = (\{q_0\}, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, \emptyset)$:



- $r = \epsilon$. Then $L(r) = \{\epsilon\}$. Construct the NFA $N_{\epsilon} = (\{q_0\}, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, \{q_0\})$:



Proof (Cont.)

- $r = a$ for $a \in \Sigma$. Then $L(r) = \{a\}$. Construct the NFA $N_a = (\{q_0, q_1\}, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, \{q_1\})$:



- for $r = r_1 \mid r_2$, $r_1 \circ r_2$ or $r = r_1^*$, by induction hypothesis and closure properties of NFA. ■

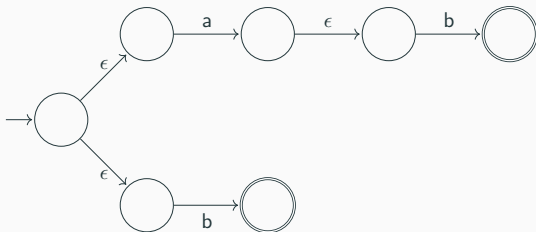
example

Example

- ab and b



- $(ab \mid b)$



second part of the Theorem

Thm.

For every NFA N there is a regular expression r such that $L(r) = L(N)$. □

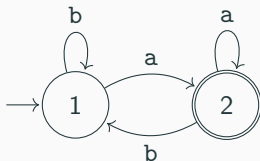
Proof

Let $M = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ be an equivalent DFA. W.L.O.G. let $Q = \{1, \dots, n\}$. For every $1 \leq i, j \leq n$ and $0 \leq k \leq n$, define the language $L(i, j, k)$

$$L(i, j, k) := \{w \in \Sigma^* \mid \text{there is a run of } M \text{ on } w \text{ from } i \text{ to } j \\ \text{without passing through any states } \geq k + 1\}.$$

That is, if $w \in L(i, j, k)$ there is a run of M on w from i to j without passing through states $k + 1, \dots, n$.

example



	$k = 0$	$k = 1$	$k = 2$
$L(1, 1, k)$	$b \mid \epsilon$	b^*	$(a \mid b)^* a$
$L(1, 2, k)$	a	$b^* a$	
$L(2, 1, k)$	b	b^+	
$L(2, 2, k)$	$a \mid \epsilon$	$b^* a \mid \epsilon$	

second part of the Theorem (cont.)

Claim (1)

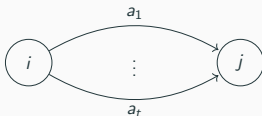
For every $1 \leq i, j \leq n$ and $0 \leq k \leq n$, there exists a regex r such that $L(r) = L(i, j, k)$. □

Proof of Claim 1

We will prove the Claim by induction on k .

(Base case $k = 0$) for every $1 \leq i, j \leq n$, consider $L(i, j, 0)$:

- if $i \neq j$ and there is no transition from i to j : 
the language $L(i, j, 0) = \emptyset$, so we may take $r = \emptyset$.
- if $i \neq j$ and there are some transition from i to j :



then $L(i, j, 0) = \{a_1, \dots, a_t\}$, so we may take $r = a_1 \mid \dots \mid a_t$.

proof of the Theorem (cont.)

- if $i = j$ and there is no transition from i to i :
then $L(i, i, 0) = \{\epsilon\}$ and we may take $r = \epsilon$.



- if $i = j$ and there are some transitions from i to i :



then $L(i, i, 0) = \{a_1, \dots, a_t, \epsilon\}$, we can take $r = a_i \mid \dots \mid a_t \mid \emptyset^*$.

(Induction step) We have the following identity:

$$L(i, j, k + 1) = L(i, j, k) \cup (L(i, k + 1, k) \circ L(k + 1, k + 1, k)^* \circ L(k + 1, j, k)).$$

By induction hypothesis, there is regex for each of

$L(i, j, k)$, $L(i, k + 1, k)$, $L(k + 1, k + 1, k)$ and $L(k + 1, j, k)$. Thus there is regex for $L(i, j, k + 1)$.

Finishing the proof of Theorem

By definition of $L(M)$, we have

$$L(M) = \bigcup_{q_f \in F} L(q_0, q_f, n).$$

By Claim 1, there is a regex for each $L(q_0, q_f, n)$.

By taking the union over all $q_f \in F$, we get a regex for $L(M)$. ■

Conclusion

Thm.

Let L be a language. The following are equivalent:

- L is accepted by a DFA, i.e., L is a regular language.
- L is accepted by an NFA.
- L is defined by a regular expression.



Remark.

- one nice implication of this corollary is that languages defined by regular expression are also closed under intersection and complement.
- this is despite the fact that we are not allowed to use intersection or negation in regular expressions.
 - in practice, there is an **extended** version of regex that allows using intersection and negation



another approaches of regex to NFA

One can generalize the definition of NFA to the one allowing transitions labeled by regular expressions. Denote by $\mathcal{RE}(\Sigma)$ the set of all regular expressions over an alphabet Σ .

Defn. (NFA-reg)

A nondeterministic automation with regular expression transitions (NFA-reg) is a tuple $N = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ where

- Q, Σ, q_0, F are as for NFA;
- $\delta : Q \times \mathcal{RE}(\Sigma) \rightarrow 2^Q$ such that $\delta(q, r) = \emptyset$ for all but a finite number of pairs $(q, r) \in Q \times \mathcal{RE}(\Sigma)$.

Accepting runs are defined as for NFA. An NFA-reg A accepts a word $w \in \Sigma^*$ if A has an accepting run on $r_1 \cdots r_k$ such that $w \in L(r_1) \cdots L(r_k)$. □

Then, given an regex r , one can construct an NFA-reg as



rules for NFA-reg to NFA

- Concatenation:



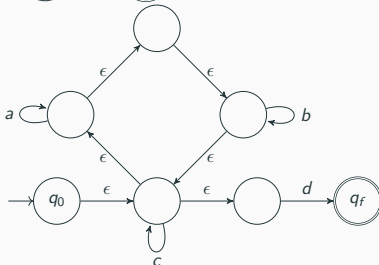
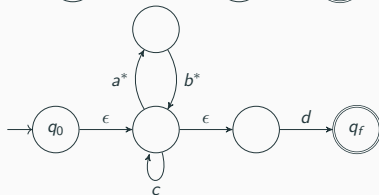
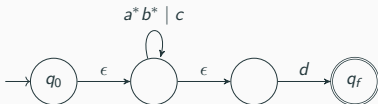
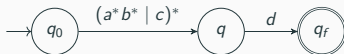
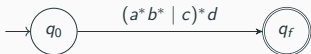
- Choice



- Kleene star:



NFA-reg to NFA example



another approaches of NFA to regex

The proof we have seen is called the **transitive closure method** [HMU07]. However there are two other famous methods:

- **State removal method**[EB23]:

1. Unify all final states into a single final state using ϵ -transitions.
2. Unify all multi-transitions into a single transition that contains union of inputs.
3. Remove states and change the transitions accordingly until there is only the initial state and the final state.
4. Compute the regular expression.

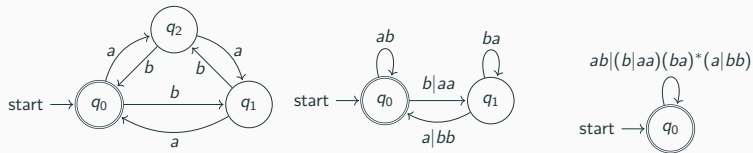
- **Brzowski algebraic method**:

1. Construct an equivalent NFA $N = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ without ϵ -transitions.
2. For every q_i construct the equation

$$Q_i = \bigcup_{q_i \xrightarrow{a} q_j} aQ_j \cup \begin{cases} \{\epsilon\} & \text{if } q_i \in F \\ \emptyset & \text{else} \end{cases}$$

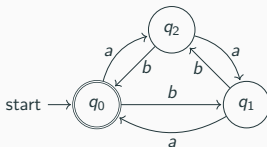
3. Solve the equation and find Q_0 .

example of state removal method



We get the regex $R = (ab|(b|aa)(ba)^*(a|bb))^*$.

example of Brzozowski's algebraic method



$$Q_0 = bQ_1 + aQ_2 + \epsilon$$

$$Q_1 = aQ_0 + bQ_2$$

$$Q_2 = bQ_0 + aQ_1 = bQ_0 + a(aQ_0 + bQ_2) = abQ_2 + (b + aa)Q_0$$

By Arden's Lemma: $L = UL \cup V$ iff $L = U^*V$ where $\epsilon \notin U$, we get

$$Q_2 = (ab)^*(b + aa)Q_0.$$

$$Q_0 = b(aQ_0 + bQ_2) + aQ_2 + \epsilon = (ba + (bb + a)(ab)^*(b + aa))Q_0 + \epsilon.$$

By Arden's Lemma again, we have $Q_0 = (ba + (bb + a)(ab)^*(b + aa))^*$.

Decision properties of regular languages

fundamental questions about languages

- **Emptiness**: does a language describe empty?
- **Universality**: does a language describe Σ^* ?
- **Membership**: is a particular string w in the described language?
- **Equivalence**: do two descriptions of a language actually describe the same language?

emptiness

emptiness

Task: given a language L , decide whether $L = \emptyset$.

- If the language L is represented by an automation M , i.e., $L = L(M)$. The emptiness problem is equivalent to the **graph-reachability** from the initial state to an accepting state.
 - Base case: the initial state is surely reachable.
 - Induction: if state q is reachable from the initial state and there is a transition from q to p , then p is reachable.

If M has n states, the reachability calculation takes no more time than $O(n^2)$.

- If L is represented by a regex r . We can, either convert r into an NFA N (within $O(n)$ time) and apply the above algorithm; or consider the following algorithm:
 - Base case: $L(\emptyset) = \emptyset$; $L(\epsilon)$ and $L(a)$ for any $a \in \Sigma$ are not.
 - Induction:
 1. $r = r_1 \cup r_2$: $L(r) = \emptyset$ iff $L(r_1) = L(r_2) = \emptyset$.
 2. $r = r_1 r_2$: $L(r) = \emptyset$ iff $L(r_1) = \emptyset \vee L(r_2) = \emptyset$.
 3. $r = r_1^*$: $L(r) \neq \emptyset$ since $L(r_1^*)$ always contains ϵ .

membership

Task: given L and $w \in \Sigma^*$, decide whether $w \in L$.

- If L is representation by an automation M , then we just need to feed w into M by simulating M on input w and get the answer.
- If M is DFA, the complexity is $O(|w|)$.
- If M is NFA, the complexity is $O(|w|s^2)$ where $s = |Q_N|$.
- If L is represented by a regex r of size s_r , convert it into an NFA N (with $|Q_N| = 2s_r$) in $O(s_r)$ time and perform the above simulation taking $O(|w|s_r^2)$ time.

universality

Task: given L , decide whether $L = \Sigma^*$.

- If L is represented by a DFA M , then it can be done in at most $O(n^2)$ time
- If L is represented by an NFA N , then it is **PSPACE**-complete [EB23, Sec. 3.2.6]
- If L is represented by a regex, then it is **PSPACE**-complete [AHU74, Thm 10.14]

Equivalence and minimization

Defn. (equivalence of states)

Given a DFA $M = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ and $p, q \in Q$.

- p and q are said to be **equivalent** iff for all input strings $w \in \Sigma^*$,

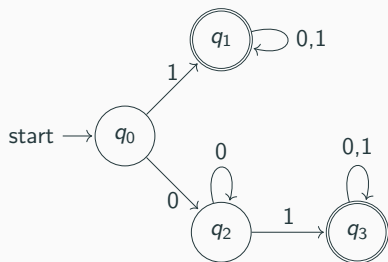
$$p \xrightarrow{w} p' \in F \iff q \xrightarrow{w} q' \in F$$

- p and q are **distinguishable** iff they are not equivalent.



note: p' need not to be q' ; we only ask if both p' and q' are in F .

table-filling algorithm



- consider the DFA on the left
- since $q_0 \notin F$ but $q_1 \in F$, q_0 and q_1 are distinguishable.
- similarly, $\{q_0, q_3\}$, $\{q_2, q_1\}$, $\{q_2, q_3\}$ are all distinguishable.
- q_1 and q_3 have self-loops labeled by 0, 1, hence $\{q_1, q_3\}$ are equivalent.
- what about $\{q_0, q_2\}$?

table-filling algorithm (cont.)

table-filling algorithm

- Base case: if $p \in F$ and $q \notin F$, then the pair $\{p, q\}$ is distinguishable.
- Inductive: let $p, q \in Q, a \in \Sigma$ and $p \xrightarrow{a} r, q \xrightarrow{a} s \in \delta$; if $\{r, s\}$ is distinguishable, then $\{p, q\}$ is distinguishable.

Sketch of proof

- base case is obvious.
- if $\{r, s\}$ is distinguishable, then there exists a w s.t.

$$r \xrightarrow{w} r' \in F \text{ and } s \xrightarrow{w} s' \notin F$$

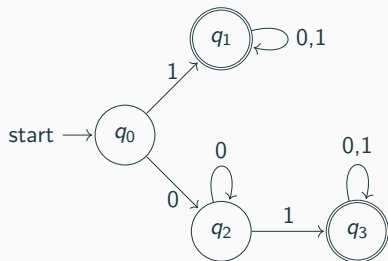
(the other case is symmetric)

$$\Rightarrow p \xrightarrow{aw} r' \in F \text{ and } q \xrightarrow{aw} s' \notin F.$$

$$\Rightarrow \{p, q\} \text{ is distinguishable.}$$



table-filling algorithm (cont.)



q_0				
q_1	X			
q_2		X		
q_3	X		X	
	q_0	q_1	q_2	q_3

- by algorithm, we see $\{q_0, q_2\}, \{q_1, q_3\}$ are equivalent.

Thm.

If two states are not distinguished by the table-filling algorithm, then they are equivalent.



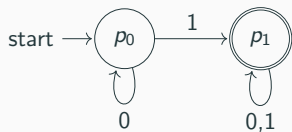
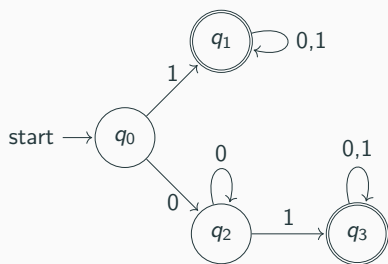
equivalence

given two regular languages L_0 and L_1 , decide whether $L_0 = L_1$.

- convert L_0 and L_1 into DFAs M_0 and M_1 if necessary.
- put M_0 and M_1 together and run table-filling algorithm to see if their initial states are equivalent or not.
- if the initial states are equivalent, then $L(M_0) = L(M_1)$
otherwise, $L(M_0) \neq L(M_1)$.

technically this union DFA has two initial states, however the initial state is irrelevant as far as testing state equivalence using table-filling algorithm.

equivalence of DFAs (cont.)



q_0						
q_1	X					
q_2		X				
q_3	X		X			
p_0		X		X		
p_1	X		X		X	
	q_0	q_1	q_2	q_3	p_0	p_1

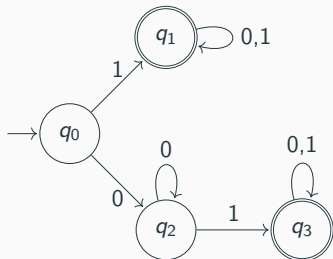
- by algorithm, we see $\{q_0, p_2\}$ is equivalent and hence both DFAs accept the same language.
- moreover, we found $\{q_0, q_2, p_0\}, \{q_1, q_3, p_1\}$ are equivalent.

minimization

given a DFA M , can one find an equivalent M' with the minimum number of states?

- surprisingly, the test for equivalence of states can solve the minimization problem.
- the algorithm is as follows:
 1. remove all the states unreachable from the initial state.
 2. run the table-filling algorithm to find equivalent states.
 3. construct M' with equivalence classes as states.

Minimization of DFA

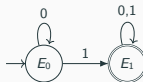


$q_i \backslash q_j$	q_0	q_1	q_2	q_3
q_0				
q_1	X			
q_2		X		
q_3	X		X	

- by algorithm, we see $E_0 = \{q_0, q_2\}$, $E_1 = \{q_1, q_3\}$ are equivalent.
- $M' = (\{E_0, E_1\}, \{0, 1\}, \delta', E_0, \{E_1\})$

and

δ'	0	1
E_0	E_0	E_1
E_1	E_1	E_1



minimization of DFAs

Thm.

The equivalence of states is **transitive**. □

Proof.

suppose not: $\{p, q\}, \{q, r\}$ are equivalent but $\{p, r\}$ is distinguishable

$\Rightarrow$ there exists w s.t. $p \xrightarrow{w} p' \in F$ but $r \xrightarrow{w} r' \notin F$

- if $q \xrightarrow{w} q' \in F$, it contradicts to $\{q, r\}$ is equivalent
 - if $q' \notin F$, it contradicts to $\{p, q\}$ is equivalent
-

Cor.

The minimization algorithm is correct, namely, the DFA M' constructed from the algorithm has as few states as any of equivalent DFA. Moreover, such a minimal DFA is unique. □

minimization of DFA

There is an another point of view:

Thm. (Myhill–Nerode)

Let $L \subseteq \Sigma^*$ be a language and $w \in \Sigma^*$ be a string. Define the set

$$\text{Next}_L(w) := \{t \in \Sigma^* \mid wt \in L\}$$

and let $\equiv_L$ be an equivalence relation defined by

$$u \equiv_L v \iff \text{Next}_L(u) = \text{Next}_L(v).$$

We have

- L is regular iff the number k of equivalence classes of $\equiv_L$ is finite.
- in this case, there is a DFA M with k states such that $L(M) = L$ and there are no DFA with a strictly smaller number of states that recognizes L .

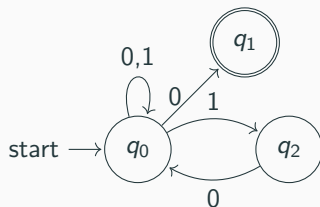


other DFA minimization algorithms

- Myhill-Nerode Theorem can be generalized to *tree automata* and other models.
- most of the minimization algorithms like Hopcroft's Algorithm or Moore's Algorithm are based on the Theorem¹.
- their efforts are on optimizing the partition refinement algorithms, e.g., Hopcroft's trick [EB23, sect. 2.2.3]
- about 50 years later, there are new approaches from functorial [CP20] and coalgebra's [JW23] viewpoints

¹c.f. https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/DFA_minimization

minimization of NFA



- one might imagine the same states-equivalence technique may work for NFAs.
- we can do that for sure; however the resulting NFA may not be the “minimum”.
- consider the NFA on the left: none of these three states are equivalent.
- but we can remove q_2 and still get an NFA recognizing the same language.

Remark.

- minimization of NFA is **hard** (PSPACE-complete).
- the minimal NFAs may not be unique!

Given a regular language, we have algorithms to decide or compute:

- the union, intersection, complement, mirror of a language (exercise)
- emptiness, universality (its complement is empty)
- equivalence

What is missing?

Pumping lemma

testing whether a language is regular?

Thm.

Testing whether a context-free language is regular is undecidable². □

- well, we don't have an algorithm.....
- however, we can give a less powerful criteria to prove that a language is *not regular*.

²c.f. [HMU07, Chap. 6]

pumping lemma

pumping lemma

Let L be a regular language over Σ . There exists $p \geq 1$ such that $\forall w \in L$ such that $|w| > p$, there exists a partition $w = xyz$, $x, y, z \in \Sigma^*$ such that

1. $|y| > 0$, i.e., $y \neq \epsilon$;
2. $|xy| < p$;
3. for each $i \geq 0$, the string $xy^iz \in L$.

What does that means?

- for every regular language L , there is a string w of length p such that, if L recognizes strings longer than p , then there **must** be a “loop” in the automation (or in other word, a Kleene star in the regex).
- therefore, there is a substring of the word (the one belong to the loop) which can be pumped (repeated arbitrary many times while staying in L).

pumping lemma (cont.)

Pumping Lemma

Let L be a regular language over Σ . There exists $p \geq 1$ such that $\forall w \in L$ such that $|w| > p$, there exists a partition $w = xyz$, $x, y, z \in \Sigma^*$ such that

1. $|y| > 0$, i.e., $y \neq \epsilon$;
2. $|xy| \leq p$;
3. for each $i \geq 0$, the string $xy^iz \in L$.

How do we use it?

- It is a *necessary condition* for a language to be regular:
 1. if a language is regular, it can be “pumped”. By contrapositive, if a language cannot be “pumped”, then it is not regular.
 2. if a language can be pumped, it is not necessary regular.

Example of non-regular language

Example

$L = \{a^n b^n \mid n \in \mathbb{N}_0\}$ is not regular.

Proof.

- Suppose L is regular. Let $p \geq 1$ be the pumping length given by the pumping lemma.
- Consider $w = a^p b^p \in L$. $|w| = 2p > p$. By pumping lemma, there is a partition $w = xyz$ such that $xy^i z \in L$ for $i \geq 0$.
- By lemma, $|xy| \leq p$ and $|y| > 0$, i.e., $\underbrace{a^i}_x \underbrace{a^j}_y \underbrace{a^{p-i-j} b^p}_z$ and $j > 0$.
- However $xy^0 z = xz = a^{p-j} b^p \notin L$ which leads to a contradiction.



Cor.

$C = \{w \mid w \text{ has an equal number of a's and b's}\}$ is not regular.



Example of non-regular language

Example

$L = \{ww \mid w \in \{0,1\}^*\}$ is not regular.

Proof.

- Suppose L is regular. Let $p \geq 1$ be the pumping length given by the pumping lemma.
- Consider $s = 0^p 1 0^p 1$. $|s| > p$.
- By pumping lemma, there is a partition $s = xyz$ s.t. $|xy| < p$, $|y| > 0$ and $|xy^i z| \in L$ for all $i \in \mathbb{N}_0$. Thus $y \in 0^+$.
- But then $xz \notin L$.



example of non-regular language

Example

$L = \{0^i 1^j \mid i > j\}$ is not regular.

Proof.

- Suppose L is regular and p is the pumping length. Choose $s = 0^{p+1}1^p$.
- By pumping lemma, there is a partition $s = xyz$ s.t. $|xy| < p$, $|y| > 0$ and $|xy^i z| \in L$ for all $i \in \mathbb{N}_0$.
- Since $|xy| \leq p$, $y \in 0^+$. But $xz \notin L$ for $|y| > 0$. Contradiction.



pumping lemma (cont.)

pumping lemma

Let L be a regular language over Σ . There exists $p \geq 1$ such that $\forall w \in L$ such that $|w| > p$, there exists a partition $w = xyz$, $x, y, z \in \Sigma^*$ such that

1. $|y| > 0$, i.e., $y \neq \epsilon$;
2. $|xy| \leq p$;
3. for each $i \geq 0$, the string $xy^iz \in L$.

Proof.

- Let $M = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ be a DFA s.t. $L(M) = L$. Set $p = |Q|$.
- For any string $w = a_1 \cdots a_n \in L(M)$ with $n \geq p$, let $r_1, s_1, \dots, s_n, r_{n+1}$ be the corresponding run (i.e. $r_1 = q_0$, $r_{i+1} = \delta(r_i, s_i)$ for all $i \in [n]$).
- Since $n + 1 > n \geq p = |Q|$, there are $1 \leq j < k \leq p + 1$ s.t. $r_j = r_k$.
- Choose $x = a_1 \cdots a_{j-1}$, $y = a_j \cdots a_{k-1}$ and $z = a_k \cdots a_n$.
- Thus, $xy^iz \in L(M)$ for $i \geq 0$. Since $j \neq k$, $|y| > 0$. $k \leq p + 1$ so $|xy| \leq p$.

Summary

Given a regular language, we have algorithms to decide or compute:

- the union, intersection, complement, mirror of a language (exercise)
- emptiness, universality (its complement is empty)
- equivalence

Given a language,

- it is impossible to decide whether or not it is regular.
- however, pumping lemma gives us a criteria to prove that a language is **not** regular.

What should we remember?

- everything! **all** these properties translate to trees and tree automata.
- for all other formalism (Grammar, Pushdown automata,..etc), some of these properties hold, others don't.
- when they do hold, often the proofs are similar.

Where to go?

- More formal models, e.g. Context-free grammar, Turing machine,...etc.
- To infinite and beyond, e.g., ω -Automata or Büchi Automata.
- It is widely studied in computational complexity, formal verification and natural language processing.

to infinity and beyond

we would like to generalize inputs to finite automata

instead of finite input strings, let us consider an infinite input strings over Σ

$$\alpha = a_1 a_2 \cdots a_n \cdots$$

let $M = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ be a finite automaton, we would like to define a run $\rho = q_0 a_1 q_1 a_2 q_2 \dots$ on α to be an infinite sequence such that

$$\forall i \geq 0. q_i \xrightarrow{a_i} q_{i+1} \in \delta$$

Problem: there is no “final” state in an infinite run

What is an accepting run?

Büchi acceptance

let us define

$$\text{Inf}(\rho) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \{q \in Q \mid q \text{ occurs infinitely many times in } \rho\}$$

Defn. (Büchi acceptance)

- An infinite run ρ of $M = (Q, \Sigma, \delta, q_0, F)$ on α is **accepting** if $\text{Inf}(\rho) \cap F \neq \emptyset$
- An infinite string α is **accepted** by M if there exists an accepting run on α
- the **ω -language** of M , denoted by $L_\omega(M)$ is defined as

$$L_\omega(M) \stackrel{\text{def}}{=} \{\alpha \mid \alpha \text{ is an infinite string accepted by } M\}$$



example

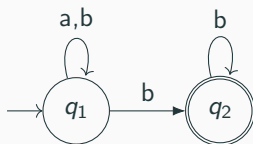


Figure 19: NFA N_6

we have

$$L_\omega(N_6) = \{\alpha \mid \alpha \text{ has only finitely many } a\text{'s}\}$$

the corresponding ω -regular expression is $(a|b)^*b^\omega$

for finite automata over finite input strings, we know nondeterminism does not give us more expressive power

however,

Thm.

Nondeterministic Büchi automata recognize strictly more language than deterministic ones

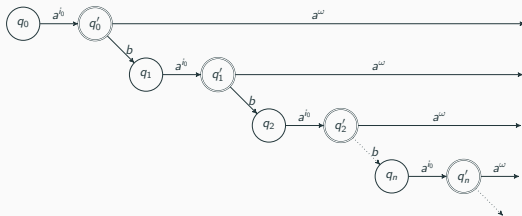


Example

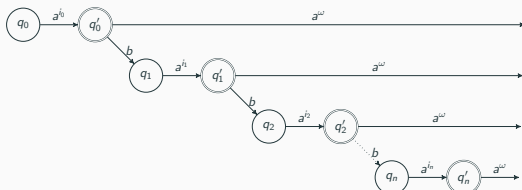
the ω -language defined by Fig. 19 cannot be accepted by any deterministic Büchi automata

sketch of the proof

Let $\mathcal{A} = (Q, \{a, b\}, \delta, q_0, F)$ be a DBA with $|Q| = n$ such that $L_\omega(\mathcal{A}) = L_\omega(N_6)$.



- consider $w_0 = a^{i_0} \in L_\omega(N_6)$.
- by assumption there is a run ρ_0 on w_0 which visits a state in F infinitely many times.
- let q'_0 be the first state in F reached by the run ρ_0 after reading i_0 letters.



- consider the word $w_1 = a^{i_0} b a^{i_0}$.
- since A is deterministic, the run ρ_1 on w_1 and the one ρ_0 on w_0 are equal up to q'_0 .
- $w_1 \in L_\omega(N_6)$, there must be a transition from q'_0 to a state q_1 different from q_0, q'_0 .

the class of ω -regular language

Defn.

- A language L_ω is called ω -regular if there is a nondeterministic Büchi automata N such that $L_\omega(N) = L_\omega$
- denote by $\mathcal{R}_\omega$ the class of ω -regular languages



Remark.

- $\mathcal{R}_\omega$ is closed under boolean operations
- emptiness of Büchi automata is decidable in linear time
- $\text{LTL} \subsetneq \mathcal{R}_\omega$



conclusion remark

- automata theory is a rich field
- it is widely studied in computational complexity, formal verification, and natural language processing
- you will see applications of automata theory in formal verification next week



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Questions?